

# ENG502

## FINALS Compilation 2024

Chapter Wise Imp short & long questions

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## Lesson 21

### 1. Characteristics of perspective approach?

a set of rules for the 'proper' use of a language is still to be found today and may be best characterized as the prescriptive approach

- You must not split an infinitive.
- You need to immediately see him. Incorrect
- You need to see him immediately. Correct
- You must not end a sentence with a preposition.
  - Who did you go with? Incorrect
  - With whom did you go? Correct

### 2. Descriptive approach?

Using a well-established grammatical description of Latin is a useful guide for some European languages (e.g., Italian or Spanish), but is less useful for others (e.g., English). This last point became clear to those linguists who were trying to describe the structure of the native languages of North America toward the end of the nineteenth century. The categories and rules

that were appropriate for Latin grammar just did not seem to fit these languages. In twentieth century, a rather different approach was adopted. The linguists took the samples of the language they were interested in and attempted to describe the regular structures of the language. This is called the descriptive approach. A descriptive grammarian would say that a sentence is 'grammatical' if a native speaker of the language would produce that sentence in speaking. So, all prescriptive or normative rules of Latin grammar were considered to be applicable to English.

### 3. Difference structural and constituent analysis?

#### **Structural analysis:**

One type of descriptive approach is called structural analysis and its main concern is to investigate the distribution of forms in a language. The method involves the use of 'test-frames' that can be sentences with empty slots in them. All the forms that fit in the same test-frame are the examples of the same grammatical category.

#### **Constituent analysis:**

Constituent analysis is an approach to describe language. It is designed to show how small constituents (or components) in sentences go together to form larger constituents. One basic step is determining how words go together to form phrases.

### 4. Structure of Gaelic sentence?

Gaelic sentence is organised with the following structure:

V NP NP

It is different from English that has the following structure:

NP V NP

It may help us understand why a Spanish learner of English produces phrases like

\*the book good

So, different languages have different structures.

## Lesson 22

### 1. Define syntax?

The word 'syntax' comes originally from Greek and literally means 'a putting together' or arrangement. There was an attempt to produce an accurate description of the sequence or ordering 'arrangement' of elements

in the linear structure of the sentence. In the more recent attempts to analyze syntactic structure, there has been a greater focus on the underlying rule system that we used to produce or ‘generate’ sentences.

For example, ‘near London’ is a correct prepositional phrase as London is a proper noun and does not need an article; on the other hand, ‘with dog’ is not a correct prepositional phrase as ‘dog’ should have article ‘a’ with it. So, the correct prepositional phrase is ‘a dog’.

## **2. Goal of syntactic analysis?**

A small and finite (i.e., limited) set of rules that will be capable of producing a large and potentially infinite (i.e., unlimited) number of well-formed structures. The small and finite set of rules is sometimes described as a ‘generative grammar’ because it can be used to ‘generate’ or produce sentence structures and not just describe them.

## **3. Generative grammar?**

Generative grammar is a linguistic theory that regards grammar as a system of rules that generates exactly those combinations of words that form grammatical sentences in a given language. The generative school has focused on the study of syntax, but has also addressed other aspects of a language's structure, including morphology and phonology. Early versions of Chomsky's theory were called transformational grammar, which is still used as a general term that includes his subsequent theories. Generativists have argued that many of the properties of a generative grammar arise from a universal grammar that is innate to the human brain, rather than being learned from the environment. Noam Chomsky opposed the earlier theories of structuralism by rejecting the idea that each language is different from the other.

## **4. Properties of generative grammar?**

Noam Chomsky has argued that many of the properties of a generative grammar arise from an ‘innate’ universal grammar, which is common to all languages. The grammar must generate all the wellformed syntactic structures (i.e., sentences) of the language and fails to generate any ill-formed structures. The grammar will have a finite (i.e., limited) number of rules but will be capable of generating an infinite number of well-formed structures. The productivity of language would be captured within the grammar. Rules of this grammar also need the crucial property of recursion. The grammar will have to capture the fact that a sentence can have another sentence inside it.

### 5. Crucial property of recursion?

Recursive ('repeatable any number of times') rules have the capacity to be applied more than once in generating a structure. For example, The gun was on the table. The above sentence has one prepositional phrase describing location i.e., 'on the table'. We can also add 'near the window' and 'in the bedroom' in this sentence. Then it will be The gun was on the table near the window in the bedroom.

## Lesson 23

### 1. Surface structure?

Surface structure is the outward form of a sentence. This means that it is the version of a sentence that is seen or heard. Surface structures follow grammar and syntax rules to make them usable and understandable in everyday contexts.

### 2. Deep structure?

Deep structure is a level of syntactic representation with a number of properties that need not necessarily go together. Four important properties of deep structure are: Major grammatical relations, such as subject of an object of, are defined at deep structure. All lexical insertion occurs at deep structure.

### 3. Common symbols used in syntactic description?

While describing syntactical categories some symbols are used as abbreviations for syntactic categories.

- 'S' (= sentence),
- 'NP' (= noun phrase), 'N' (= noun),
- 'Art' (= article),
- 'V' (= verb) and
- 'VP' (= verb phrase)
- 'PP' (= prepositional phrase),

### 4. Labelled tree diagrams?

The most common way to create a visual representation of syntactic structures is through tree diagrams. We can use the symbols introduced (Art=article, N = noun, NP = noun phrase) to label parts of the tree as we try to capture the hierarchical organization of those parts in the underlying structure of phrases and sentences. At the top of the tree diagram, we begin

with a sentence (S), and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N) and VP into V and NP. At the top of the tree diagram, we begin with a sentence (S) and divide it into two constituents (NP and VP). In turn, the NP constituent is divided into two other constituents (Art and N).

# Lesson 24

## 1. Phrase structure rules?

These are the rules that form phrases of different types e.g., noun phrase, verb phrase, and adjective phrase etc. A tree diagram can have two different ways: simply as a static representation of the structure of the sentence shown at the bottom of the tree diagram. Every single sentence can have a tree diagram. The other one is the dynamic format which is a way of generating not only that particular sentence, but a very large number of other sentences with similar structures. This second approach is very appealing because it would enable us to generate a very large number of sentences with what looks like a very small number of rules. These rules are called phrase structure rules.

## 2. Lexical rules?

Phrase structure rules generate structures. To turn those structures into recognizable English, we also need lexical rules. They specify which words can we rewrite constituents such as N. The first rule in the following set states that 'a proper noun rewrites as Mary or George'

- $PN \rightarrow \{Mary, George\}$
- $N \rightarrow \{girl, dog, boy\}$
- $Art \rightarrow \{a, the\}$
- $Pro \rightarrow \{it, you\}$
- $V \rightarrow \{followed, helped, saw\}$

## 3. Transformational rules?

Transformational rules (T-Rules) relate the spoken form of the sentence (surface structure) to their underlying meaning (deep structure), for example, Linguists often use large words.

- Large words are often used by linguists.

These set contain s synonymous sentence. As the forms are different their phrase marker would be different. Surface structure refers to the actual

utterance that can be broken down by traditional analysis. Different surface structure may have the same deep structure or vice versa.

#### 4. Types of transformation?

**Deletion:** A sentence that undergoes the transformation must have the same meaning as the sentence from which it was derived.

**Imperative transformation:** Transformation never changes meaning. The meaning remains same, e.g., You come home. Come home.

**Insertion transformation** He knew she was here. He knew that she was here. He won the race is history. That he won the race is history.

**Substitution transformation** Pronoun substitution Pronominalization Transformation Tony thought that Tony was the best. Tony thought that he was the best.

#### 5. IC analysis?

Immediate constituent analysis or IC analysis is a method of sentence analysis that was first mentioned by Leonard Bloomfield and developed further by Rulon Wells. The principle of IC analysis is to cut a sentence into two and then to cut those parts into two and to continue with the segmentation until the smallest indivisible unit, the morphemes are reached. As a general principle the division is binary.

#### 6. Expansion?

Expansion is a technical term, the substitution of one sequence of elements for another. A sequence of elements said to be the expansion of another.

- Children
- American children
- Three American children
- Three American children with a dog
- Those three American children with a dog

## Lesson 25

#### 1. Define semantic?

The word semantics comes from the Greek word *sema* (noun) which means 'symbol' or 'sign'. The verb is *Semaino* which means 'signify'. The symbol of the synonymy of *sema* is a linguistic sign. Saussure (1996) states that linguistic sign consists of the signifier, component, in sort of sounds and the signified, the referent outside of language. Semantics is a term which is used

in linguistics, which studies the relation between linguistic sign and signified thing. In other words, semantics is a branch of linguistics, which studies about the meaning.

## **2. How Halliday define the term semantic?**

Halliday (1985) states that the term “semantics” does not simply refers to the meaning of words; it is the entire system of meanings of a language, expressed by grammar as well as by vocabulary. Semantics brings in symbols use in the language and outside the language, but its primary concern is human language. In semantics, one is trying to make explicit meanings, i.e., in which manner words and sentences of various grammatical constructions are used and understood by native speakers of that language.

## **3. Types of meaning?**

Lexical meaning refers to the meaning of words that belong to one of the four lexical word classes. It is the aspect of meaning usually given in a dictionary.

- Grammatical meaning includes the meaning of grammatical items (e.g., function words and inflectional affixes), grammatical functions (e.g., subject and object), and different sentence-types (e.g., declarative and interrogative).
- Taking into account certain non-linguistic aspects of meaning, Geoffrey Leech (1981) lists seven different types of meaning.
- Referential meaning (also called denotative meaning, descriptive meaning, conceptual meaning, or sense) refers to the logical, cognitive, or denotative content of an expression
- Connotative meaning (associative meaning) denotes the associations and secondary meanings the expression evokes.
- Social meaning (stylistic meaning) is the information that the linguistic expression conveys about certain social characteristics.
- Emotive or affective component of the expression is referred to as its affective meaning. Social meaning and affective meaning together are sometimes called connotation.
- Reflected meaning refers to certain associations with another sense of the same expression, whereas collocative meaning (collocation) is conveyed by characteristic word combinations.
- Thematic meaning denotes the organization of a message in terms of information structure.

## **4. conceptual or denotative meaning?**



Conceptual meaning or denotative meaning covers those basic, essential components of meaning that are conveyed by the literal use of a word. It is the type of meaning that dictionaries are designed to describe. Some of the basic components of a word like 'needle' in English might include "thin, sharp, steel instrument." These components would be part of the conceptual meaning of needle. However, different people might have different associations or connotations attached to a word like needle. They might associate it with "pain," or "illness," or "blood," or "drugs," or "thread," or "knitting," or "hard to find" (especially in a haystack), and these associations may differ from one person to the next.

### **5. Connotative meaning?**

Connotative meaning is what people think about two words and find whether it is possible or impossible for the word to have two different meanings from its denotative meaning. Based on it, the meaning depends on personal interpretation. Sometimes, people have the same or different thought. Sometimes when a word has both positive and negative sense value, the word is called a connotative meaning word. It is also pointed out that connotation meaning is subjective, in notion that there is a shift from common meaning because it has been added by sense and certain value, for example, bookworm is used for a person who always read books, with a negative sense.

### **6. Propositional meaning with example?**

Propositional meaning is the type of meaning that comes from the context within which the sentence is used. Another distinction that has been made is called 'linguistic meaning' which is different from a proposition, and does not carry truth-value. E.g., 'Mary loves Carl' means the same as 'Mary ama Carl.'

Propositions are statements about the world which can be true or false. They form the basis of human reasoning and determine our views, selfhood, and actions. In linguistic behaviour, propositions emerge in complete sentences (or clauses). It is the full sentence, in a context, that forms a proposition. "A jeep crashed into a barrier" establishes a topic/subject ("a jeep") and makes a conceptually verifiable statement about it. Sarah realizes that a jeep crashed into a barrier." "Sarah thinks that a jeep crashed into a barrier."

### **7. Prosody?**



Prosody is the study of the tune and rhythm of speech, and the way these features contribute to meaning. Prosody features apply to a level above that of the individual phoneme and very often to sequences of words.

### 8. Level of information that speech contains?

Speech contains various levels of information that can be described as;

- Linguistic - direct expression of meaning
- Paralinguistic - may indicate attitude or membership of a speech community
- Non-linguistic - may indicate something about a speaker's vocal physiology, state of health or emotional state.

## Lesson 26

### 1. Semantic roles?

A semantic role is the underlying relationship that a participant has with the main verb in a clause. Semantic role is the actual role a participant plays in some real or imagined situation, apart from the linguistic encoding of those situations. Semantic roles are used to indicate the role played by each entity in a sentence and are ranging from very specific to very general. If the situation is a simple event, as in 'The boy kicked the ball', then the verb describes an action (kick). The noun phrases in the sentence describe the roles of entities, such as people and things, involved in the action.

### 2. Agent?

Agent is the semantic role of a person or thing who is the doer of an event. An agent is usually the grammatical subject of the verb in an active clause. A prototypical agent is conscious, acts with volition (on purpose), and performs an action that has a physical, visible effect.

- The boy ran down the street.
- He was chased by the dog.

Although we have changed an active clause into a passive one, and the boy is now the subject, nothing has changed in the real world. Although agents are typically human (The boy), they can also be non-human entities that cause actions, as in noun phrases denoting a natural force (The wind), a machine (A car), or a creature (The dog), all of which affect the ball as theme.

- The boy kicked the ball.
- The wind blew the ball away.

- A car ran over the ball

### 3. Theme?

Another role is taken by the ball as ‘the entity that is involved in or affected by the action’, which is called the theme (or sometimes the ‘patient’). The theme can also be an entity (The ball) that is simply being described (i.e., not performing an action), as in

- The ball was red. The theme is typically non-human, but can be human (the boy), as in the dog chased the boy.
- The boy kicked the ball.
- The wind blew the ball away.
- A car ran over the ball.

The same physical entity can appear in two different semantic roles in a sentence, as in The boy cut himself. The boy is agent and himself is theme. The theme may also be called ‘patient’ or ‘undergoer’

### 4. Instrument?

If an agent uses another entity in order to perform an action, that other entity fills the role of instrument.

- The boy cut the rope with an old razor.
- He drew the picture with a crayon. In these examples with an old razor and with a crayon are ‘instrument’ with which the agent performed the action.

### 5. Experiencer in semantic?

Experiencer is the semantic role of an entity (or referent) which receives, accepts, experiences, or undergoes the effect of an action.

We see something.

We know something.

We enjoy something.

No action is being performed by agents.

The boy feels sad.

The experiencer (The boy) is the only semantic role.

Did you hear that noise?

The experiencer is you and the theme is that noise.

## Lesson 27

### 1. Synonyms?

Two or more words with very closely related meanings are called synonyms. They can often, though not always, be substituted for each other in sentences. Other common examples of synonyms are the pairs:

- almost/nearly, big/large,
- broad/wide, buy/purchase,
- cab/taxi, car/automobile, couch/sofa,
- freedom/ liberty. The idea of ‘sameness’ of meaning used in discussing synonymy is not necessarily ‘total sameness’.
- Sandy had only one answer correct on the test. Here the word reply would sound odd.

## 2. Antonyms?

Antonymy refers to the pair-wise relation of lexical items in context that are understood to be semantically opposite (as discussed below).

- Alive/dead • Big/small • Fast/slow • Happy/sad • Hot/cold • Long/short • Male/ female • Married/single • Old/new, • Rich/poor
- Two forms with opposite meanings are called antonyms.

### Types of antonyms:

‘Gradable’ (opposites along a scale)

- ‘Non-gradable’ (direct opposites)

## 3. Hyponym?

The meaning of one form is included in the meaning of another, the relationship is hyponymy.

- rose is a hyponym of flower

In hyponymous connections, we are essentially looking at the meaning of words in some type of hierarchical relationship. Superordinate (= higher-level) Two or more words that share the same superordinate term are co-hyponyms. Co-hyponymy captures the concept of ‘is a kind of’, as ‘an asp is a kind of snake’. It is not only words for “things” that are hyponyms. Words such as; punch shoot and stab, describing ‘actions’, can all be treated as cohyponyms of the superordinate term injure.

## 4. Prototypes?

The idea of ‘the characteristic instance’ of a category is known as the prototype. The concept of a prototype helps explain the meaning of certain words, like bird, not in terms of component features (e.g., ‘has feathers’, ‘has wings’), but in terms of resemblance to the clearest example. Ostrich or

penguin should be hyponyms of bird (technically they are), but have no trouble deciding about sparrow or pigeon.

### 5. Homonyms with examples?

One form (written or spoken) has two or more unrelated meanings. They have separate histories and meanings. But they have exactly the same form.

- bank (of a river) • bank (financial institution) • bat (flying creature) bat (used in sports) • mole (on skin) • mole (small animal)

### 6. Polysemy with example?

: Polysemy is an interesting phenomenon that concerns cases in which a word or phrase enjoys multiple, related meanings.

- head the object on top of body,
- froth on top of a glass of beer,
- person at the top of a company or department
- foot (of person, of bed, of mountain)

### 7. Difference b/w homonyms and polysemy?

| HOMONYMS                                                                                                                  | POLYSEMY                                                                                                |
|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Homonymy is characterized as the phenomenon where a single word form is associated with two or several unrelated meanings | Polysemy is the phenomenon whereby a single word form is associated with two or several related senses. |
| for examples, bank, mail, mole and sole, etc.                                                                             | face, foot, get, head and run are some examples of polysemy                                             |

### 8. Metonymy?

Metonymy is another type of relationship between words based simply on a close connection in everyday experience.

- A container–contents relation (bottle/water, can/juice)
- A whole–part relation (car/wheels, house/roof).
- A representative–symbol relationship (king/crow.
- The President/the White House).

## Lesson 28

### 1. Define pragmatics?

Pragmatics is the study of meaning in context. This branch of linguistics is concerned with the relationship of sentences to the environment in which they occur is categorized. The communication depends on not only recognizing the meaning of the words in an utterance, but also to interpret what speakers mean to say. The study of what speakers mean is called pragmatics.

## 2. Define context? Write its types?

There are some very common words in our language that cannot be interpreted at all if we do not know the context, especially the physical context of the speaker. These are words such as here and there, this or that, now and then, yesterday, today or tomorrow, as well as pronouns such as you, me, her, him, it, and them. Some sentences of English are virtually impossible to understand if we do not know who is speaking, about whom, where and when.

TYPES:

Linguistics context

Physical context

Socio-cultural context

## 3. Socio-cultural context?

Socio-cultural context refers to the idea that language is closely linked to the culture and society in which it is used. This means when language is learnt, the socio-cultural context in which it is used needs to be taken into consideration as well. Social-Cultural context still includes factors such as illiteracy rate, population geographic distribution, educational level and the populations' ethnic composition. All of these factors can influence the organization's performance, affecting its productivity level and product's quality patterns.

# Lesson 29

## 1. Define deixis and its types?

A deictic expression (or deixis) is a word or phrase (such as this, that, these, those, now, then) that points to the time, place, or situation in which a

speaker is speaking. The bits of language that we can only understand in terms of the speaker's intended meaning. They are technically known as deictic (/daɪktɪk/) expressions, from the Greek word deixis, which means "pointing" via language.

Person deixis: To point to things (it, this, these boxes) and people (him, them, those idiots). Spatial deixis: To point to a location (here, there, near that)

Temporal deixis: To a time (now, then, last week)

## **2. Briefly define person deixis?**

Deixis is the phenomena of requiring contextual information to create the meaning of a phrase. The term of 'deixis' is used from the Greek word which means 'to show' or 'to indicate', used to denote the elements in a language which refer directly to the situation. It stipulates what a deictic reference to the participant role of a referent is such as: -

- The Speaker: The utterer of a message. Deictic center of his/her own deictic references
- The addressee: The listener of a message
- The Referents: Neither speaker nor the addressee, might present there but not addresses directly

## **3. Basic three division of person?**

Basic three-part divisions are:

- First person
- Second person
- Third person

## **4. Write place deixis with example?**

Place deixis are also known as space deixis, concerns itself with the spatial locations relevant to an utterance. Similarly to person deixis, the locations may be either those of the speaker and addressee or those of persons or objects being referred to. Similarly to person deixis, the locations may be either those of the speaker and addressee or those of persons or objects being referred to. The most salient English examples are the adverbs 'here' and 'there', and the demonstratives 'this' and 'that' - although those are far from being the only deictic words. Some examples: • I enjoy living in this city. • Here we will place the statue

## **5. Time deixis with example?**

Time, or temporal, deixis concerns itself with the various times involved in and referred to in an utterance. This includes time adverbs like 'now', 'then', 'soon', and so forth, and also different tenses. The 'tomorrow' of a day last year was a different day from the 'tomorrow' of a day next week. Time adverbs can be relative to the time when an utterance is made the 'encoding time' or ET or when the utterance is heard 'decoding time', or DT.

## 6. Reference? And its types?

Words are used to refer to people, places and times. Reference is an act by which a speaker (or writer) uses language to enable a listener (or reader) to identify something. To perform an act of reference, we can use proper nouns, other nouns in phrases or pronouns. We sometimes assume that these words identify someone or something uniquely, but it is more accurate to say that, for each word or phrase, there is a 'range of reference.'

### Types:

- Exophoric reference (outside)
- Endophoric reference (inside)
- Anaphoric (backward)
- Cataphoric (forward) Reference

## 7. Inference?

A successful act of reference depends more on the listener's ability to recognize what we mean than on the listener's 'dictionary' knowledge of a word we use.

Where is the spinach salad sitting?

- He is sitting by the door.

# Lesson 30

## 1. Anaphora?

Anaphora can be defined as subsequent reference to an already introduced entity. The connection between an antecedent and an anaphoric expression is created by the use of a pronoun (it), or a phrase with 'the' plus the antecedent noun (the puppy) or another noun that is related to the antecedent in some way (The little dog ran out of the room). The connection between antecedents and anaphoric expressions is often based on inference.

- We found a house to rent, but the kitchen was very small.
- I caught a bus and asked the driver if it went near the downtown area.



- If X is a house, then X has a kitchen.

## 2. Define presupposition with example?

What a speaker (or writer) assumes is true or known by a listener (or reader) can be described as a presupposition. A presupposition is an implicit assumption about the world or background belief relating to an utterance whose truth is taken for granted in discourse. Examples of presuppositions include: When did you stop smoking? Presuppositions: You used to smoke. You no longer do so. Built-in presuppositions are very useful devices for interrogators or trial lawyers. Okay, Mr. Buckingham, how fast were you going when you ran the red light?

- Did you eat the cheese?
- Presupposition: There was some cheese

## 3. Speech acts and write its levels?

A speech act is an utterance that has performative function in language and communication. "Almost any speech act is really the performance of several acts at once, distinguished by different aspects of the speaker's intention. This is the act of saying something; what one is saying it, such as requesting or promising, and how one is trying to affect one's audience".

**A locutionary act:** The performance of an utterance: the actual utterance and its ostensible meaning, comprising phonetic, phatic and rhetic acts corresponding to the verbal, syntactic and semantic aspects of any meaningful utterance.

**An illocutionary act:** The pragmatic 'illocutionary force' of the utterance, thus its intended significance as a socially valid verbal action.

**Perlocutionary act:** Its actual effect, such as persuading, convincing, scaring, enlightening, inspiring, or otherwise getting someone to do or realize something, whether intended or not.

## 4. Direct & indirect speech acts?

A direct relationship between the structure and the communicative function of the utterance is called direct speech act. We do not know something. We ask someone to provide the information.

It means that there is an indirect relationship between the form and the function of the utterance. 'Can you pass the salt'? This structure is not really asking a question about someone's ability. It is used to make a request. An indirect speech act is a syntactic structure associated with the function of a

question, but in this case with the function of a request. Indirect speech acts are based on some complex social assumptions.

## LESSON 31

### 1. Discourse analysis?

The term discourse analysis was first employed by Zellig Harris as the name for 'a method for the analysis of the connected speech or writing for continuing descriptive linguistics beyond the limit of a single sentence at a time and for correlating culture and language' (Harris, 1952). The word 'discourse' is usually defined as 'language beyond the sentence' and so the analysis of discourse is typically concerned with the study of language in texts and conversation.

### 2. CDA?

Critical Discourse Analysis (CDA) is a field that is concerned with studying and analyzing written and spoken texts to reveal the discursive sources of power, dominance, inequality and bias. It examines how these discursive sources are maintained and reproduced within specific social, political and historical contexts. Fairclough (1993) defines CDA as discourse analysis, which aims to explore often opaque relationships of causality and determination between (a) discursive practices, events and texts, and (b) wider social and cultural structures, relations and processes.

### 3. Principles for CDA?

Some principles for CDA:

- a. Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse
- b. Power relations are negotiated and performed through discourse.
- c. Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations
- d. Ideologies are produced and reflected in the use of discourse.

### 4. Cohesion?

Cohesion is the grammatical and lexical linking within a text or sentence that holds a text together and gives it meaning. It is related to the broader concept of coherence. The structure depends on factors quite different from those required in the structure of a single sentence. Some of those

factors are described in terms of cohesion, or the ties and connections within the texts. 'My father once bought a Lincoln convertible. He did it by saving every penny he could. That car would be worth a fortune nowadays. However, he sold it to help pay for my college education. Sometimes I think I would rather have the convertible.

### 5.coherence?

Coherence is the key to the concept 'everything fitting together well'. It is beyond the text that exists in people, not in words or structures. It is people who 'make sense' of what they read and hear. People arrive at an interpretation that is in line with their experiences, the way the world is. Coherence is the own understanding of something based on personal experiences. It is a way to incorporate all the disparate elements into a single coherent interpretation, and a process of filling the gaps that exist in the conversation or in the texts. Coherence creates meaningful connections not actually expressed by the words. The process not restricted to trying to understand "odd" texts. In conversational interactions a great deal of what is meant is not actually present in what is said.

## LESSON 32

### 1. Categories of discourse?

Language teaching divide discourse into two major categories:

- Spoken
- Written

### 2. Spoken discourse?

Spoken discourse is less planned and orderly in a conversation. It is more open to intervention by the receivers. Some kinds of spoken discourses are lesson, lectures, interviews, court trials etc. These spoken discourses are planned to some extent by the person who initiates the conversation, and the possibility of subordinate participants can be limited.

### 3. Written discourse:

In reading novel, one cannot influence its development. At times readers may affect the written discourse, e.g., a person is writing

something and the response of the market can influence his writing. A teacher as a reader sends the essays back to the students to be rewritten. In the same way the editors ask writers to edit something from written material. The traditional division of spoken and writing is based on a difference in production.

#### **4. Formal and informal discourse?**

Formal discourse is planned discourse. It may be spoken and written.

- Less formal/informal:
- It is unplanned discourse either spoken or written. However, it is usually spoken. Informal spoken especially by foreign language learner is informal and unpredictable.

#### **5. Discourse as a process?**

Conversation is a discourse constructed and negotiated between the participants, following preestablished patterns, and marking the direction in particular ways; with pauses, laughs, intonations, filler words, and established formulae. These conventions enable the participant to orientate to what is happening and to make sense of the interaction. Discourse analyst is accounting for sequences of utterance. Language teacher considers powerful clues concerning the causes of sensation of floundering in conversation. Culture-specific rules and procedures of turn-taking provide ample breeding ground for misunderstanding just like entering and leaving conversation, bidding for a longer turn, refusing without being rude, changing the topic etc. Such things are all difficult for foreign learners. Language class hardly prepares students for the real life situations.

#### **6. Discourse as dialogue?**

Developmentally, dialogue comes first, both for the human species, and for the human individual. There is no hard evidence of the origins of language in prehistoric communities to assume that speech preceded writing and dialogue preceded monologue. The earliest written texts of Western European culture, the Socratic dialogues, present as conversation that modern writers would present as monologue. Perhaps some of this preference remains in modern practices which favour face-to-face interaction: lectures, job interviews, and news interviews.

## 7. Knowledge schemata in discourse?

The role of knowledge in discourse production and comprehension has been a result of findings in the field of artificial intelligence in order to program computers for producing and understanding discourse. These programs need more than the language being used; it involves pre-existent knowledge of the world. Artificial Intelligence tries to understand how this knowledge and language interact and to reproduce the process in computers. For discourse analysis, the most important idea to come out of the field of Artificial Intelligence (AI) is 'knowledge schemata'. Mental representations of typical situation used in discourse processing to predict the content of the particular situation, which the discourse describes. Mind stimulated by key words or phrases in the text, or by the context, activates a knowledge schema and uses it to make sense of the discourse. To program a computer AI needs to reproduce the process and to give computers both the necessary language knowledge and necessary schemata. This is difficult for the existing computers. How mental schemata operate in discourse production and comprehension. When a sender judges his receiver's schema to correspond to a significant degree with his own, he only needs features which are not contained in it. Other features need to be present by default.

# LESSON 33

## 1. What is conversation?

It is a less formal talk. Discourse analysis can be either vague or any kind of talk as per discourse analysts' definition of conversation. Talk may be defined as conversation when:

1. It is not primarily necessitated by a practical task.
2. Any unequal power of participants is partially suspended.
3. The number of participants is small.
4. Turns are quite short.
5. Talk is primarily for the participants and not for an outside audience.

## 2. CA?

Conversation analysis (CA) is a branch of study which sets out to discover what order there might be in this apparent chaos. CA associated with ethno-methodologist, people who look for a method when people enter to discussion and make sense of it. They have tried to discover what methods people use to participate in and make sense of interaction.

A conversation is always based on turn taking. The ethno-methodologist tried to see how people handle a conversation at local level, how they judge when to speak and when to be silent. They further started to analyze with the bottom-up approach, i.e., study from word to sentence. They tried to understand how it unfolds in time. They viewed discourse as a developing process rather than a finished product, having planned beginning, middle and ending.

## 3. Turn-taking?

In conversation analysis, turn-taking is a term for the manner in which orderly conversation normally takes place. Once a topic is chosen and a conversation initiated, then matters of conversational 'turntaking' arise. Knowing when it is acceptable or obligatory to take a turn in conversation is essential to the cooperative development of discourse. This knowledge involves such factors as knowing how to recognize appropriate turn-exchange points and knowing how long the pauses between turns should be.

## 4. Maxims of language?

- be true (the maxim of quality)
- be brief (the maxim of quantity)
- be relevant (the maxim of relevance)
- be clear ( the maxim of manner)

## 5. Politeness in conversational principle?

Politeness principle, like co-operative principle, may be formulated as a series of maxim, which people assume are being followed in the utterances of others. Any flouting of these maxims will take on

meaning, provided it is perceived for what it is. Robin Lakoff (1973) formulated the following maxims:

Don't impose

Give option

Make your receiver feels good

These maxims explain many of those utterances with no new information

## LESSON 34

### 1. Areas between educational research and CDA?

First, educational practices are considered communicative events; discourse studies (DS) is useful to analyze the ways in which the texts, talk, and other semiotic interactions that learning comprises are constructed across time and contexts.

Second, discourse studies provide a particular way of conceptualizing interactions that is compatible with sociocultural perspectives in educational research. A shared assumption is that discourse can be understood as a multimodal social practice. Discourse reflects and constructs the social world through many different sign systems.

A third area of commensurability is that discourse studies and educational research are both socially committed paradigms that address problems through a range of theoretical perspectives. Critical approaches to discourse analysis recognize that inquiry into meaning making is always an exploration into power. Many of the problems that are addressed, particularly in a globalized world system, have to do with power and inequality. CDA provides the tools for addressing the complexity of movement across educational sites, practices, and systems in a world where inequalities are global in scope.

### 2. History of CDA?



The CDA as a network of scholars emerged in the early 1990s, following a small symposium in Amsterdam, in January 1991 by scholars such as Dijk, Norman Fairclough, Gunther and others. The meeting made it possible to confront with the distinct and different approaches, which have, of course, changed significantly since 1991 but remained relevant, in many respects. In this process of group formation, the differences and sameness were laid out; differences with regard to other theories and methodologies, and sameness in a programmatic way, both of which frame the range of theoretical approaches (Wodak, 2004). Some of the scholars previously aligned with CDA have chosen other theoretical frameworks. Many approaches were created and integrated with the more traditional theories. CDA as a school or paradigm is characterized by a number of principles, for example, all approaches are problem-oriented, and thus necessarily interdisciplinary and eclectic. CDA is characterized by the common interests in de-mystifying ideologies and power through the systematic investigation of semiotic data (written, spoken or visual). New journals have been created, multiple overviews have been written, and nowadays CDA is an established paradigm in linguistics.

### 3. CST?

Critical Social Theory (CST) provides a theoretical foundation for critical approaches to discourse analysis. CST is a trans-disciplinary knowledge base structured by the dual agendas of critiquing and resisting domination and creating a society free of oppression (Anyon, 1997).

- Critical social theory and research rests on the rejection of naturalism (that social practices, labels, and programs represent reality),
- Rationality (the assumption that truth is a result of science and logic)
- Neutrality (the assumption that truth does not reflect any particular interests), and individualism

- CST's intellectual heritage draws on philosophy, literature, legal scholarship, cultural studies, critical race scholarship, political economy studies, ethnic studies, and feminist studies, and has been influenced by schools such as the Frankfurt School and the British Cultural Studies.

#### 4. James Gee's approach to CDA?

An integrated approach to discourse analysis is the analysis of spoken and written language as it is used to enact social and cultural perspectives and identities. Assuming no prior knowledge of linguistics, James Paul Gee presents both a theory of language-in-use, as well as a method of research. Norman Fairclough developed a three-dimensional framework for studying discourse, where the aim is to map three separate forms of analysis onto one another. For example, analysis of (spoken or written) language texts, analysis of discourse practices (processes of text production, distribution and consumption) analysis of discursive events as instances of sociocultural practice.

## LESSON 35

### 1. Applied linguistics?

Applied linguistics is an interdisciplinary field of linguistics which identifies, investigates, and offers solutions to language-related real-life problems.

Since late 1950s with the advent of generative linguistics, applied linguistics has always maintained a socially-accountable role, demonstrated by its central interest in language problems. In the 1960s, it was expanded to include language assessment, language policy, and second language acquisition. In 1970s, it became a problem-driven field rather than theoretical linguistics, including the solution of language-related problems in the real world. In 1990s, it broadened and included critical studies and multilingualism. Research in

applied linguistics was shifted to "the theoretical and empirical investigation of real world problems in which language is a central issue. The 'applied linguistics' refers to a broad range of activities which involve solving some language-related problem or addressing some language-related concern.

## 2. Scope of applied linguistic?

A large and open-ended number of quite disparate activities to which applied linguistics is relevant. The scope of applied linguistics • Language and education • First-language education • Additional-language education/second language education • Clinical linguistics • Language testing

## 3. Major branches of applied linguistics?

Bilingualism: the ability of an individual or the members of a community to use two languages effectively.

- Multilingualism: ability to use multiple languages is known as multilingualism.
- Conversation analysis: an approach to the study of social interaction and talk-in-interaction has exerted significant influence across the humanities and social sciences including linguistics.
- Contrastive linguistics: a practice-oriented linguistic approach that seeks to describe the differences and similarities between a pair of languages.
- Sign linguistics: any unit of language (morpheme, word, phrase, or sentence) used to designate objects or phenomena of reality.
- Language planning and policy: Decisions about language policies, requirements, and practices have important consequences in all social contexts. Language planning refers to deliberate efforts to influence the behaviour of others through language codes.
- Pragmatics: the study of the use of linguistic signs, words and sentences, in actual situations.

# LESSON 36

## 1. Psycholinguistics?

Psycholinguistics or psychology of language is the study of the psychological and neurobiological factors that enable humans to acquire, use, comprehend and produce language. The discipline is mainly concerned with the mechanisms in which languages are processed and represented in the brain. Psycholinguistics has roots in education and philosophy, and covers the 'cognitive processes' that make it possible to generate a grammatical and meaningful sentence out of vocabulary and grammatical structures.

## 2. Neurolinguistics?

The study of the relationship between language and the brain is called 'Neurolinguistics'. The field of study dates back to the nineteenth century when the location of language in the brain was an early challenge. The accident of Mr. Gage made it clear to the scientists that language may be located in the specific parts of the brain; it is not clearly situated right at the front.

## 3. Language areas in brain?

A number of discoveries have been made about the specific parts in the brain that are related to language functions. The most important parts are in areas above the left ear. We need to look more closely at some of the gray matter. So, if we observe a head, remove hair, scalp, skull, then disconnect the brain stem (connecting the brain to the spinal cord) and cut the corpus callosum (connecting the two hemispheres).

#### 4. Broca area?

Broca's area or the Broca area is a region in the frontal lobe of the dominant hemisphere of the hominid brain with functions linked to speech production. Language processing has been linked to Broca's area. Since Pierre Paul Broca reported impairments in two patients. Paul Broca, a French surgeon, reported in the 1860s that damage to this specific part of the brain was related to extreme difficulty in producing speech. It was noted that damage to the corresponding area on the right hemisphere had no such effect. This finding was first used to argue that language ability must be located in the left hemisphere and since then has been treated as an indication that Broca's area is crucially involved in the production of speech

#### 5. Wernicke's area?

A region of the brain concerned with the comprehension of language, located in the cortex of the dominant temporal lobe. Damage in this area causes Wernicke's aphasia, characterized by superficially fluent, grammatical speech but an inability to use or understand more than the most basic nouns and verbs. This finding confirmed the left hemisphere location of language ability and led to the view that Wernicke's area is part of the brain crucially involved in the understanding of speech.

#### 6. Motor cortex?

Motor Cortex is the part of the cerebral cortex in the brain which originates the nerve impulses that initiate voluntary muscular activity. The part shown as in the illustration is the motor cortex, an area that generally controls movement of the muscles (for moving hands, feet, arms, etc.). Close to Broca's area is the part of the motor cortex that controls the articulatory muscles of the face, jaw, tongue and larynx.

## LESSON 37

## 1. Aphasia and its types?

Aphasia is defined as an impairment of language function due to localized brain damage that leads to difficulty in understanding and/or producing linguistic forms. The most common cause of aphasia is a stroke; traumatic head injuries from violence or an accident may have similar effects. Those effects can range from mild to severe reduction in the ability to use language. Someone who is aphasic often has interrelated language disorders, and the difficulties in understanding can lead to difficulties in production.

Different types of aphasia

- Broca's aphasia
- Wernicke's aphasia
- Conduction aphasia

## 2. Types of aphasia?

**Broca's Aphasia or Motor Aphasia:** This type is characterized by a substantially reduced amount of speech, in which distorted articulation and slow and often effortful speech are noted.

**Agrammatic:** In this type the speech consists entirely of lexical morphemes (e.g., nouns, verbs) whereas there are frequent omissions of functional morphemes (e.g., articles, prepositions) and inflections (e.g., plural -s, past tense -ed). Here is an example. I eggs and eat and drink coffee breakfast my cheek ... very annoyance ... main is my shoulder ... aching' all round here. The patient faces difficulty in articulating single words. However, comprehension is typically much better than production.

**Wernicke's Aphasia or Sensory Aphasia:** The person with it has difficulties in auditory comprehension. He produces very fluent speech but feels difficulty to make sense. He uses very general terms. 'I can't talk all of the

things I do, and part of the part I can go alright, but I cannot tell from the other people'. He finds difficulty in finding the correct word, sometimes referred to as anomia.

**Conduction Aphasia:** This aphasia is less common, as it is associated with damage to the arcuate fasciculus and is called conduction aphasia. In its symptoms, the person mispronounces words, but typically do not have articulation problems. He is fluent, but may have disrupted rhythm because of pauses and hesitations. His comprehension of spoken words is normally good. He produces words like the following: vaysse and fosh for 'base' and 'wash'. Language disorders described above are almost always the result of injury to the left hemisphere.

### 3. Right hemisphere advantage?

The right hemisphere appears to have primary responsibility for processing a lot of other non-linguistic incoming signals. In the dichotic listening test, it can be shown that non-verbal sounds (e.g., music, coughs, traffic noises, and birds singing) are recognized more often via the left ear, meaning they are processed faster via the right hemisphere. The right hemisphere is first choice for non-language sounds (among other things) and the left hemisphere specializes in language sounds (among other things too). These specializations may actually have more to do with the type of processing, rather than the type of material, that is handled best by each of the two hemispheres. Analytic processing, such as recognizing the smaller details of sounds, words and phrase structures in rapid sequence is done with the 'left brain'. The holistic processing is done with the 'right brain'.



# LESSON 38

## 1. Sociolinguistics?

Sociolinguistics can be defined as the descriptive study of the effects of different aspects of society, including cultural norms, expectations, and context, on the way language is used, and society's effect on language. There are certain social variables that are vital to the discipline such as: e.g., ethnicity, religion, status, gender, level of education, age, etc. The adherence to these rules is used to categorize individuals in social or socioeconomic classes.

## 2. Standard variety of English in the world?

There are different standard varieties of English in the world:

- British English
- North American English
- , • Australian English
- Indian English, etc.

## 3. Vernacular language?

A vernacular language is the native language or native dialect (usually colloquial or informal) of a specific population, especially. It is distinguished from a literary, national or standard variety of the language, or a lingua franca. It is used in the region or state inhabited by that population, and is spoken by the ordinary people of a country or region.

## 4. Difference b/w accent and dialect?

| Accent                                                          | Dialect                                                                           |
|-----------------------------------------------------------------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| An accent is a manner of pronunciation peculiar to a particular | Dialect includes the features of grammar and vocabulary as well as the aspects of |

|                                                                                                                              |                                                                                                    |
|------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| individual, location, or nation.                                                                                             | pronunciation. You don't know what you're talking about.                                           |
| it is the description of aspects of pronunciation that identify where an individual speaker is from, regionally or socially. | For example, 'Ye dinnae ken whit yer haverin' about.' (by a speaker of Scottish English might say) |

## 5. Pidgin?

A pidgin is a variety of a language that developed for some practical purpose, such as trading among people not knowing each other's languages. It may be a Chinese version of the English word 'business'. It will be described as an 'English pidgin' if English is the lexifier language, that is, the main source of words in the pidgin. No same pronunciation or meaning as in the source is used. The word gras has its origins in the English word 'grass', in Tok Pisin for 'hair'.

## 6. Creole?

When a pidgin develops beyond its role as a trade or contact language and becomes the first language of a social community, it is described as a creole. Tok Pisin is now a creole. Although still locally referred to as 'Pidgin', the language spoken by a large number of people in Hawai'i is also a creole, technically known as Hawai'i Creole English. A creole initially develops as the first language of children growing up in a pidgin-using community and becomes more complex as it serves more communicative purposes. There are large numbers of native speakers and are not restricted at all in their uses. A French creole is used

in Haiti. English creoles are used in Jamaica and Sierra Leone.

### 7. Difference b/w diglossia and polyglossia?

| Diglossia                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                          | Polyglossia                                                                                                                                                                                  |
|--------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| This is a situation in which two distinct varieties of a language are spoken within the same speech community, 'high' or special variety, learned in school and used for important matters.                                                                        | The coexistence of two or more languages or distinct varieties of the same language, within a speech community is known as Polydiglossia.                                                    |
| In Arabic speaking countries 'the high variety' (Classical Arabic) is used in formal lectures, serious political events and especially in religious discussions. The low variety is the local version of the language, such as Egyptian Arabic or Lebanese Arabic. | According to Lindsay (2007), Polydiglossia is a term that refers to a person's ability to communicate in more than two languages. Polydiglossia situations involve two contrasting varieties |

### 8. Language and culture relation ?

Language and culture is the study of language which originates in the work of anthropologists who have used language as a source of information in the general study of 'culture'. Culture can be defined as 'shared beliefs, values and behaviours of a social group', where social group can be a family at a micro level and a nation at a macro level (Byram, 2008). Language is 'socially acquired knowledge'. 'Language

is used not just as a tool for the exchange of information, but as a symbolic system with the power to create and shape symbolic realities, such as values, perceptions, identities through discourse' (Kramsch, 2002). Our first language is initially acquired without conscious awareness. We develop awareness of our knowledge, and hence of our culture, only after having developed language. The particular language we learn through the process of cultural transmission provides us, at least initially, with a ready-made system of categorising the world around us and our experience of it. With the words we acquire, we learn to recognise the types of category distinctions that are relevant in our social world. Very young children may not initially think of 'dog' and 'horse' as different.

## LESSON 39

### 1. Acquisition ?

The acquisition of first language is remarkable for the speed with which it takes place. A child long before he/she starts school, becomes an extremely sophisticated language user operating a system for self-expression and communication. The human child cannot be compared to any other creature or computer. The learning generally occurs without any overt instruction, regardless of great differences in their circumstances. The idea behind it is, there is an innate predisposition in the human infant to acquire language - special capacity for language with which each newborn child is endowed. There

are many different ways to characterize the developmental sequence.

## 2. Stages of acquisition?

| Stage                                                                                       | Typical age  | Description                                                                                                       |
|---------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|--------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| Babbling                                                                                    | 6-8 months   | Repetitive CV patterns                                                                                            |
| One-word stage<br>(better <i>one-morpheme</i> or <i>one-unit</i> )<br>or holophrastic stage | 9-18 months  | Single open-class words or word stems                                                                             |
| Two-word stage                                                                              | 18-24 months | "mini-sentences" with simple semantic relations                                                                   |
| Telegraphic stage<br>or early multiword stage<br>(better <i>multi-morpheme</i> )            | 24-30 months | "Telegraphic" sentence structures of <i>lexical</i> rather than <i>functional</i> or <i>grammatical</i> morphemes |
| Later multiword stage                                                                       | 30+ months   | Grammatical or functional structures emerge                                                                       |

## 3. Babbling?

Between six and eight months, the child starts sitting up and producing a number of different vowels and consonants, as well as combinations such as ba-ba-ba and ga-ga-ga. In the later babbling stage, around nine to ten months, there are recognizable intonation patterns to the consonant and vowel combinations being produced, as well as variation in the combinations such as ba-ba-da-da can be observed.

## 4. One-word stage?

Between twelve and eighteen months the child produces a variety of recognizable single-unit utterances. This stage is characterized by speech, in which single terms are uttered for everyday objects like 'Cookie', 'Cat', 'Cup' 'Spoon.

### Holophrastic

During this stage a single form functions as a phrase or sentence to describe an utterance that could be analyzed as a word, a phrase, or a sentence. Holophrastic utterances seem to be used to name objects; they may also be produced in circumstances that suggest the child is already extending their use.

## 5. Telegraphic speech?

Between two and two-and-a-half years old, the child starts a large number of utterances that could be classified as “multiple-word” speech. The salient feature of these utterances ceases to be the number of words, but the variation in word forms that begins to appear. This is the stage characterized by strings of words (lexical morphemes) in phrases or sentences such as:

- This shoe all wet
- Cat drink milk
- Daddy go bye-bye.

# LESSON 40

## 1. How morphology can be develop?

By two-and-a-half years old the child is beyond telegraphic speech forms. He/she incorporates some of the inflectional morphemes that indicate the grammatical function of the nouns and verbs used. First, the child uses is the -ing form in expressions such as: cat sitting, mommy reading book etc. Secondly, -s form is used; for example, boys and cats The acquisition of the plural marker is often accompanied by a process of overgeneralization. S/he uses -s to form plurals and will talk about foots and mans.

## 2. Syntax development?

Similar evidence against 'imitation' as the basis of the child's speech production has been found in studies of the syntactic structures used by young children. One child, specifically asked to repeat what she heard, would listen to an adult say forms such as: ? The owl who eats candy runs fast ? Owl eat candy and he run fast. The child understands what the adult is saying but just has her own way of expressing it. There are numerous studies of the development of syntax in children's speech.

### 3. Stages of syntax?

The ages at which children go through these stages can vary quite a bit. Stage 1: occurs between 18 and 26 months

Stage 2: between 22 and 30 months

Stage 3: between 34 and 40 months

### 4. Semantic development?

The anecdotes that parents retell about their child's early speech (to the intense embarrassment of the grown-up child) usually involve examples of the strange use of words. Having been warned that flies bring germs into the house, one child was asked what "germs" were and the answer was "something the flies play with." It is not always possible to determine so precisely the meanings that children attach to the words they use. It seems that during the holophrastic stage many children use their limited vocabulary to refer to a large number of unrelated objects.

### 5. Question formation?

The child's first stage has two procedures in forming questions. Simply add a Wh-form (Where, Who) to the beginning of the expression, or utter the expression with a rise in intonation towards the end. Examples ?



Where kitty? ?

Doggie? ?

Where horse go?

? Sit chair?

## LESSON 41

### 1. SLA?

Some children grow up in a social environment where more than one language is used and are able to acquire a second language in circumstances similar to those of first language acquisition. Those fortunate individuals are bilingual. Most of us are not exposed to a second language until much later. Even after years of study, our ability rarely matches our ability in our first language.

The term acquisition is used to refer to the gradual development of ability in a language by using it naturally in communicative situations with others who know the language whereas learning is a more conscious process of accumulating knowledge of the features, such as vocabulary and grammar, of a language, typically in an institutional setting. (Mathematics, for example, is learned, not acquired.) Those individuals whose L2 exposure is primarily a learning type of experience tend not to develop the same kind of general proficiency as those who have had more of an acquisition type of experience.

### 2. GTM?

The most traditional approach is to treat L2 learning in the same way as any other academic subject.

Vocabulary lists and sets of grammar rules are used to define the target of learning. It focuses more on memorization. Written language rather than spoken language is emphasized. It has its roots in the traditional teaching of Latin and is described as the grammar–translation method.

### 3. Audio- Lingual method?

This method has the following characteristics: ? A very different approach ?

Emphasize on the spoken language ☐

Became popular in the middle of the twentieth century ☐

Involved a systematic presentation of the structures of the L2 ☐

Moving from the simple to the more complex ☐ Drills that the student had to repeat

#### 4. Communicative approaches?

More recent revisions of the L2 learning experience can best be described as communicative approaches. They were partially a reaction against the artificiality of 'pattern practice'. It was against the belief that consciously learning the grammar rules of a language will necessarily result in an ability to use the language. However there are different versions of how to create communicative experiences for L2 learners. This approach is based on a belief that the functions of language should be emphasized rather than the forms of the language. These changes have coincided with attempts to provide more appropriate materials for L2 learning that has a specific purpose, as in 'English for medical personnel' or 'Japanese for business people.'

#### 5. Transfers of cross linguistics influence?

Transfer means using sounds, expressions or structures from the L1 when performing in the L2. For example, a Spanish (L1) speaker who produces 'take it from the side inferior' may be trying to use the Spanish adjective inferior (=lower in English) and placing it after the noun, as is typical in Spanish constructions.

**Positive Transfer** If the L1 and L2 have similar features then the learner may be able to benefit from the positive transfer of L1 knowledge to L2.

**Negative Transfer** Transferring an L1 feature that is really different from the L2 (e.g., putting the adjective after the noun) results in negative transfer and it may make the L2 expression difficult to understand. The negative transfer (sometimes called 'interference') is more common in the early stages of L2 learning and often decreases as the learner develops familiarity with the L2.

## 6. Importance of motivation in L2?

There are several factors that combine in a profile of a successful L2 learner. Obviously, the motivation to learn is important. Many learners have an instrumental motivation. That is, they want to learn the L2 in order to achieve some other goal, such as completing a school graduation requirement or being able to read scientific publications, but not really for any social purposes. In contrast, those learners with an integrative motivation want to learn the L2 for social purposes, in order to take part in the social life of a community using that language and to become an accepted member of that community.

## 7. Communicative competence?

Communicative competence can be defined as the general ability to use language accurately, appropriately, and flexibly. The first component is grammatical competence, which involves the accurate use of words and structures. Concentration on grammatical competence only, however, will not provide the learner with the ability to interpret or produce L2 expressions appropriately. The ability to use appropriate language is the second component,

called sociolinguistic competence. It enables the learner to know when to say according to the social context. For example: Can I have some water? versus give me some water.

## LESSON 42

### 1. Family tree model?

Jones (1786) made the following observation about Sanskrit, the ancient language of Indian law: a number of languages from very different geographical areas must have some common ancestor. The discovery brought forth Proto-Indo-European group of languages. Scholars set out to identify the branches of the Indo-European family tree, tracing the lineage of many modern languages.

Thirty such language families containing more than 6,000 different individual languages (actually 6,912 languages) were established. These languages are in danger of extinction while a few are expanding. In terms of number of speakers: [?] Chinese (about 1 billion) [?] English (about 350 million)

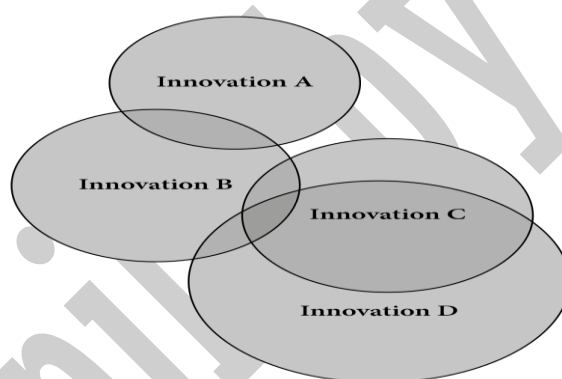
### 2. Grimm's law?

Grimm (1822) gave the concept of a systematic correspondence holding between the consonants of Germanic languages, on the one hand and of the other Indo-European on the other. Grimm's Law: These differences were first originally observed by Danish scholar, Rasmus Rask. However, Grimm's work was readily accessible to international scholars. Grimm's Law consists of three parts which form consecutive phases in the sense of a chain shift. The asterisks indicate the sounds in question are reconstructed rather than being directly attested. The PIE and PGmc are hypothetical constructs. [p] of English in spit, spew corresponds to a [p] in other languages is in apparent violation of Grimm's Law as

in Latin *spuo*, etc. Similarly *Gmc* [t] is same as *Gk* [t]. and *Skt* [t]. Each sound occurs as second segment of the two-consonantal cluster. The preservation can be seen as a regular development in English *spit*, *spew*, *stand* etc.

### 3. Wave model?

During the 20th century the wave model has had little acceptance as a model for language change overall. It has recently gained more popularity among historical linguists due to the shortcomings of the Tree model. The wave model was originally presented by Johannes Schmidt.



the **wave model** or **wave theory** is a model of language change in which a new language feature (innovation) or a new combination of language features spreads from its region of origin, affecting a gradually expanding cluster of dialects. Dialect diffusion spreads from a given point of contact like waves on the water.

## LESSON 43

## 1. Computational linguistics?

Computational linguistics seeks to develop the computational machinery needed for an agent to exhibit various forms of linguistic behaviour. Agent means human being and artificial agents such as computer program. Machinery mean computer programs as well as linguistics knowledge that they contain. Computers have no intelligence. Their linguistic capabilities derive from programs that are written for them. Computational understanding of language also provides insight into thinking and intelligence. The connection between these two fields is hardly accidental. Language involves complex symbols system and computers are very fast mechanical symbol-processor. Computational linguistics draws upon the involvement of linguists, computer scientists, and experts in artificial intelligence, mathematicians, logicians, philosophers, cognitive scientists, cognitive psychologists, psycho linguists, anthropologists and neuroscientists, among others. 'Human knowledge is expressed in language. So, computational linguistics is very important.

## 2. Tokenization?

Usually, the first step in morphological analysis is to identify separate words. This can be fairly simple in languages like English, where words are delimited by space and punctuation characters, and where sentence start with capital letters. But even in English ambiguous punctuation can cause tokenization problems: periods may be part of an abbreviation UK. However it is very challenging in synthetic languages.

# LESSON 44

## 1. dictionary?

A dictionary provides many useful things.

☐ A reference book ☐

Record of lexicon of language ☐

Quick to find information ☐

Serves as a guardian of purity of that language provides information on ☐ Spelling, form, meaning, usages of words and fixed collocation

## 2. Dictionary use?

Dictionaries are most used for reading tasks. ?

Mostly in order to find out about meaning of unknown words. ?

Less for writing tools especially for checking of spellings. ? Grammatical, etymological or phonetic information is only rarely looked up. ?

In case of foreign languages, bilingual dictionaries are used more frequently.

## 3. Electronic dictionary?

An electronic dictionary is a dictionary whose data exists in digital form and can be accessed through a number of different media. Electronic dictionaries can be found in several forms, including: ?

as dedicated handheld devices ?

as apps on smartphones and tablet computers or computer software ?

as a function built into an E-reader

## 4. Compilation of dictionaries?

The drastic improvement in the field of computer technology has made a lasting impact on the diversified growth and expansion of a corpus and made it an indispensable resource for work of linguistics and language technology. The computer has provided corpus designers a massive storage facility and impressive text processing power, which they can access quite easily for their work. Some major English dictionaries were compiled from corpora in electronic form. People realized that corpus based electronic dictionaries are far more exhaustive, authentic and reliable. The printed dictionaries are compiled manually with lexical databases obtained from secondary sources. The electronic dictionaries contained information about the meaning, the usage of headwords along with elaborate information of their lexical information, contextual usage and polysemous connotations directly obtained from corpora. Besides, they contained etymological, phonological and morphological information normally found in standard printed dictionaries.

# LESSON 45

## 1. What is linguistics research?

Linguistics is an important field of study which was introduced as a regular discipline in the universities of Europe as late as 1960s (Crystal, 1985). With the turn of the present century, this branch of knowledge further developed and many specializations were offered in various branches of linguistics in the well-known universities of the world (ibid). Research is one of the most important jobs of universities in the modern world. Universities keep on encouraging their students to conduct research studies in the neglected areas of various disciplines. It is a need of time to study the work of universities to evaluate their performance and for determining the existing research trends in various disciplines. There is no solid research to determine research trends in Linguistics in Pakistan. It may be a very important study to find out research trends in linguistics in Pakistan. A key strand of linguistic research evolved from the writings of Noam Chomsky (1965), who argued that the goal of linguistics should be to study underlying linguistic competence: the rules that inform the production of grammatical sentences.

## 2. Neuro- linguistics?

Neurolinguistics is the study of the neural mechanisms in the human brain that control the comprehension, production, and acquisition of language. As an interdisciplinary field, neurolinguistics draws methodology and theory from fields such as neuroscience, linguistics, cognitive science, neurobiology, communication disorders, neuropsychology, and computer science.

## 3. Forensic linguistics?

Forensic linguistics is the application of linguistic knowledge, methods and insights to the forensic context of law, language, crime investigation, trial, and judicial procedure. It is a branch of applied linguistics. According to Rastegar (2006), the research work using simple linear model of correlation was more in quantity while that using complex casual modelling, although less in quantity, was promising and of qualitatively high calibre and importance. The researcher concludes that casual modelling-pathway analysis is an effective tool of data analysis in the field of applied linguistics.



#### **4. Current trends in linguistics research methodology?**

Lazarton (2000) studied trends in research methodology and use of statistics for data analysis in Applied Linguistics. She attempted to find out if the current research trends in empirical studies published in journals of Applied Linguistics matched with the research models recently discussed in the same field. Thus, the aim of this research was to know how latest models of data analysis were adopted by researchers in the field of Applied Linguistics. For the purpose, the researcher analyzed and classified 332 articles published in four well-known journals of Applied Linguistics during the period 1991-1997. The articles were classified into qualitative and quantitative etc. categories, sub-classified into various categories on the basis of research methodology, data analysis techniques and research models used in the articles. The classification was based on the claim of researchers without further evaluation.

#### **5. Trends of linguistics in China?**

Young, Lichun and Jun (2001) analyzed contents of four Chinese journals of Applied Linguistics and equal number of journals of the West for comparative study of research trends in Applied Linguistics. The aim of the study was to compare research trends in linguistics in China with those of the West. The focus of this study was research methods used in applied linguistic studies published in the journals of both groups. The top research journals from both groups were selected. Articles published in the selected journals were analyzed with focus on research methodology used in the studies published during last two decades. The data were categorized into classes like qualitative, quantitative, classroom interaction analysis and non-empirical studies, etc. The findings were presented in two (decade-wise) pools.

#### **6. Trends in linguistics in Japan?**

7. Izui (1962) studied research trends in Japanese linguistics. The article is divided into four parts. The first part is about vowels of Japanese, the second about research studies on the origin of Japanese language, the third on various research studies in Japan and the last part is about the dominant theories and research methodology in Japanese linguistics. In the first part,

the researcher gives history, origin and development of the vocalic system of Japanese. The writer enumerates efforts of Japanese researchers during past centuries to study and analyze nature of vowels of Japanese language. It is pointed out that most of the efforts of researches to understand the nature of Japanese vowels were focused on ancient Japanese and Chinese scripts and distribution of occurrence of vowels with other phonemes. In the second part of the article, the researcher describes efforts of Japanese researchers and the problems faced by them in the way to determine origin of their language. The third part of the article is about study of languages of the East and West. In this section, the researcher summarizes very briefly efforts of Japanese linguists and researchers for decipherment of the ancient script and its comparison with the existing scripts.

### **8. Trends in linguistics in India?**

Jha (2003) studied current trends in linguistics in India. The study surveys progress in the field of information technology developed for linguistic purposes. It also gives passing remarks on the current status of languages and attitude of speakers in Indian society and politics. Depicting the linguistic scenario of India, Jha (2003) describes, that there are over a thousand languages with well-defined grammars, of five language families namely, Indo-Aryan, Dravidian, Austro-Asiatic, Tibet o-Burman, and Andamanese.

According to the claim of the writer, considerable development in the field of information technology enabled India to use IT for linguistic purposes by 'preserving data of the dying languages. Different public and private organizations, Universities and IT institutes are constantly working for finding ways to use IT in linguistics. According to the researcher (ibid), Indian organizations are working for creation and analysis of corpora, integration of language technology into curricula, development of speech databases, speech engines, machine translation, speech to speech translation and many other internet related programme.

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